THE MASTERMIND COACHING CLASSES

Revision Notes

Class 10 · Social Science

History (Ch 1-5) · CBSE / RBSE Syllabus

HOW TO USE THESE NOTES

Each chapter follows the textbook's own order of sections, so you can read straight through. Bold words are keywords you must be able to define. Tables compare and classify; shaded boxes hold definitions, formulas and key facts. The navy Key Takeaways box at the end of every chapter is your last-two-minutes revision.

CH.	CHAPTER TITLE	CORE THEME
1	The Rise of Nationalism in Europe	Nation-states in Europe, liberal and national ideas, unification of Germany and Italy
2	Nationalism in India	Non-Cooperation, Civil Disobedience and the many social groups in the freedom struggle
3	The Making of a Global World	Trade, migration, technology, world wars, Great Depression and the post-war order
4	The Age of Industrialisation	Factories, workers, handicrafts and Indian industry under colonial rule
5	Print Culture and the Modern World	From woodblocks to the modern press: books, ideas, reform and nationalism

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CHAPTER 01 · HISTORY

The Rise of Nationalism in Europe

In the nineteenth century the map of Europe was redrawn. Instead of empires and a patchwork of small states, people began to imagine themselves as nations with a shared language, history and government. This chapter follows that idea from the French Revolution to the unification of Germany and Italy and the nationalist tensions in the Balkans.

Big Questions

- What is a nation-state and how did the idea of the nation grow?
- How did the French Revolution spread national feeling?
- What were liberal nationalism and the conservative reaction?
- How were Germany and Italy unified?
- Why did the Balkans become explosive?

The French Revolution and the Idea of the Nation

In 1848 the French artist **Frédéric Sorrieu** painted a series of four prints showing his dream of a world of democratic and social republics, with peoples of Europe and America marching past the Statue of Liberty. His vision shows how national feeling and democratic ideals were linked.

- Before 1789 France was a monarchy ruled by a king. The Revolution of **1789** transferred sovereignty from the monarch to the **citizens**.
- The revolutionaries created symbols of a nation: the tricolour flag replaced the royal standard, the Estates General became the National Assembly, new hymns were composed, oaths were taken and a common language (French) was promoted.
- A **centralised administration** made uniform laws, abolished internal customs duties and fixed a common system of weights and measures.
- Revolutionary armies carried these ideas abroad, declaring they would liberate the peoples of Europe.

▸ Napoleon and the Civil Code of 1804

Napoleon destroyed democracy in France but, in administration, he made things more rational. The **Civil Code of 1804** (the Napoleonic Code) abolished privileges based on birth, established equality before the law and secured the right to property. It was exported to the regions under French control. Guild restrictions were removed, transport and communication improved, and peasants were freed from serfdom and manorial dues. Still, higher taxes, censorship and forced conscription made French rule unpopular in conquered areas.

> **DEFINITION**
>
> A **nation-state** is a state in which most citizens, and not only the rulers, develop a sense of common identity and shared history or descent. Nationalism is the feeling of belonging to such a nation and loyalty to it.

The Making of Nationalism in Europe

- In the mid-eighteenth century there were no nation-states in the modern sense. Europe was divided into kingdoms, duchies and cantons, and the **Habsburg Empire** (Austria-Hungary) ruled many language groups.

- The aristocracy was the dominant class, speaking French for diplomacy and high society, and owning land. A new class of industrialists, merchants and professionals grew with industry and commerce, and it supported national unity.
- The **middle classes** were educated and liberal, and demanded freedom of the market and an end to state restrictions.

Term	Meaning in the nineteenth century
Liberalism	From Latin *liber* (free). Freedom for the individual and equality before the law; politically it meant government by consent, a constitution and representative parliament.
Economic liberalism	Freedom of markets and abolition of state controls on movement of goods and capital.
Conservatism	Belief in preserving monarchy, church, social hierarchy, property and the family; accepted some modernisation.
Suffrage	Right to vote. Early liberal states gave it only to property-owning men.

IMPORTANT

Zollverein (1834) was a customs union started by Prussia and joined by most German states. It abolished tariff barriers, cut the number of currencies from over thirty to two, and built a feeling of economic nationalism.

The Age of Revolutions: 1830–1848

- After Napoleon's defeat the European powers met at **Vienna (1815)** under the Austrian chancellor **Duke Metternich**. The **Treaty of Vienna** restored the Bourbon dynasty in France, set up buffer states against France (such as the Kingdom of the Netherlands including Belgium), gave Prussia new territory in the west, and gave Austria northern Italy. It tried to undo the changes brought by Napoleon. The new system is called the **conservative order**.
- The conservative regimes were autocratic: they distrusted criticism, so censorship laws controlled newspapers, books, plays and songs.
- Secret societies appeared. **Giuseppe Mazzini**, born in Genoa in 1807, founded **Young Italy** in Marseilles (1831) and **Young Europe** in Berne (1833). He believed that nations were natural units of mankind and that monarchies had to give way to republics. Metternich called him ‘the most dangerous enemy of our social order’.
- The **July Revolution of 1830** in France overthrew the Bourbon king Charles X and a constitutional monarchy under Louis Philippe was put in place. Metternich remarked, ‘When France sneezes, the rest of Europe catches a cold.’ The revolt inspired **Belgium** to break away from the Kingdom of the Netherlands (1830-31).

▸ The Greek War of Independence

Greece had been part of the Ottoman Empire since the fifteenth century. A struggle for independence began in **1821**. Nationalists were supported by Greeks living in exile and by many West Europeans who admired ancient Greek culture; poets and artists like **Lord Byron** raised funds and fought. The **Treaty of Constantinople (1832)** recognised Greece as an independent nation.

▸ Romanticism and national feeling

Romanticism was a cultural movement that stressed emotion, intuition and mystical feeling over reason. Romantics tried to create a sense of shared past through folk songs, poetry, dances and local legends.

Johann Gottfried Herder argued that true German culture was found among the common people (das Volk). Language also played a part: after Russian occupation, Polish was used as a weapon of national resistance, and Polish clergy used it in church gatherings and religious instruction.

▸ Hunger, hardship and the revolutions of 1848

- The 1830s were years of economic hardship: population growth, unemployment, rural poverty, food shortages and bad harvests in 1848.
- In Silesia in **1845** weavers revolted against contractors who reduced their payments.
- In **1848** the Paris revolt overthrew the monarchy and a republic based on universal male suffrage was proclaimed; the right to work was guaranteed.
- In the German regions middle-class professionals and businessmen met at **Frankfurt** and voted for an all-German National Assembly. The Frankfurt Parliament (May 1848, in the Church of St Paul) drafted a constitution for a German nation headed by a monarchy subject to Parliament. King **Frederick William IV of Prussia** rejected the crown, and the Assembly was dispersed by the army. Women had been excluded from voting and were only allowed to observe from the visitors' gallery.

Though conservative forces suppressed the revolutions, they could not restore the old order. Monarchs began to grant concessions; serfdom and bonded labour were abolished in the Habsburg lands and Russia (1861 in Russia).

The Making of Germany and Italy

▸ Unification of Germany

- After 1848 nationalism was no longer a movement of democrats and the middle class; it passed to the conservative state of **Prussia**.
- Its chief minister **Otto von Bismarck** used the army and bureaucracy and fought three wars over seven years, against Austria, Denmark and France (1864-70), and won.
- In **January 1871**, at the Palace of **Versailles**, Prussian King **William I** was proclaimed German **Emperor**. The new state placed strong emphasis on modernising currency, banking, legal and judicial systems.

▸ Unification of Italy

- Italy was divided into seven states; only **Sardinia-Piedmont** was ruled by an Italian princely house. The north was under Austria, the centre by the Pope and the south by the Spanish Bourbons.
- Mazzini's republican attempts in the 1830s failed. Responsibility fell to **Sardinia-Piedmont**, under King **Victor Emmanuel II**, whose chief minister **Cavour** led the movement. He formed a diplomatic alliance with France and defeated the Austrian forces in 1859.
- **Giuseppe Garibaldi** led the Red Shirts, a band of armed volunteers; in 1860 they marched into South Italy and the Two Sicilies and drove out the Spanish rulers with the support of local peasants.
- In **1861** Victor Emmanuel II was proclaimed king of united Italy. Rome joined in 1870.

	Germany	Italy
Leader state	Prussia	Sardinia-Piedmont
Key statesman	Otto von Bismarck	Count Cavour
Military figure	Prussian army	Garibaldi and the Red Shirts
Final step	Emperor proclaimed at Versailles, 1871	King proclaimed, 1861; Rome 1870

▸ The strange case of Britain

British nationalism was not a sudden upheaval but a slow process. The English parliament, which had seized power from the monarchy in **1688**, created a nation-state with England at its centre. The **Act of Union (1707)** between England and Scotland formed the United Kingdom of Great Britain, and Scottish culture was suppressed. **Ireland** was forcibly incorporated in **1801**. A new 'British nation' was built through the Union Jack, God Save our Noble King and the English language.

Visualising the Nation

Since no one had seen a nation, artists personified it as a female figure. **Marianne** in France stood for liberty and the republic, with the red cap, tricolour and cockade. **Germania** in Germany wore a crown of oak leaves, the symbol of heroism, and held the sword and a shield with black, red and gold colours. These images were put on coins, stamps and public buildings.

Nationalism and Imperialism

- By the last quarter of the century nationalism lost its idealistic liberal-democratic character and became narrow and intolerant.
- The **Balkans** (modern Romania, Bulgaria, Albania, Greece, Macedonia, Croatia, Bosnia-Herzegovina, Slovenia, Serbia, Montenegro) was a region of geographical and ethnic variation, mostly under the Ottoman Empire. As the Ottoman Empire weakened, the Balkan peoples struggled for independence, claiming to have been independent in the past.
- The Balkans became a scene of intense rivalry; each power (Russia, Germany, England, Austria-Hungary) wanted control over the area and its trade and naval routes. This rivalry led to a series of wars and finally the **First World War (1914)**.
- Nationalism, aligned with imperialism, led to the expansion of European colonies; yet the idea of the nation inspired anti-colonial movements in Asia and Africa.

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
Who was Frédéric Sorrieu and what did he portray in 1848?	A French artist; he made four prints showing a utopian world of democratic and social republics.
What was the Civil Code of 1804?	Napoleonic Code: ended birth privileges, gave equality before law and protected property.
What was the Zollverein?	A Prussia-led customs union (1834) that removed tariff barriers among German states.
Who was Mazzini?	Italian revolutionary who founded Young Italy (1831) and Young Europe (1833).
When and where was Germany unified?	18 January 1871 at Versailles, with William I as Emperor and Bismarck as architect.
What role did Garibaldi play?	Led the Red Shirts to conquer South Italy in 1860 and joined it to Piedmont.
Why were the Balkans called a powder keg?	Ottoman decline, ethnic nationalism and great-power rivalry made it a source of war.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- The French Revolution of **1789** put the **nation** and **citizens** in place of monarchy and subjects.
- The **Treaty of Vienna (1815)** created a conservative order; liberals and nationalists rebelled in 1830 and 1848.
- **Mazzini, Cavour, Garibaldi and Bismarck** shaped the unification of Italy and Germany (1861, 1871).
- Nationalism used symbols such as **Marianne and Germania**, folk culture and language.
- Aggressive nationalism and imperial rivalry in the **Balkans** led towards the First World War.

CHAPTER 02 · HISTORY

Nationalism in India

Indian nationalism grew through the shared experience of colonial rule. Under Mahatma Gandhi the movement became a mass struggle that drew in peasants, workers, women, merchants and students. This chapter traces the path from the First World War to the Civil Disobedience Movement and shows how different groups understood freedom in different ways.

Big Questions

- How did the First World War and Gandhi's arrival change the movement?
- What were the Rowlatt Act and Jallianwala Bagh?
- How did the Non-Cooperation and Civil Disobedience Movements differ?
- Why did some groups stay away or take part in their own way?
- How did a sense of collective belonging develop?

The First World War, Khilafat and Non-Cooperation

- The War (1914-18) created a new economic and political situation: huge defence expenditure was met by war loans and higher taxes; customs duties were raised and income tax introduced; prices doubled between 1913 and 1918, hurting the poor. Villages were forced to supply soldiers, and crop failures in 1918-19 and 1920-21 plus an influenza epidemic caused famine; about 12-13 million people died as per the 1921 census.
- People hoped that the hardships would end after the war, but they did not.

▸ The idea of Satyagraha

Mahatma Gandhi returned from South Africa in **January 1915**. His method of **satyagraha** stressed the power of truth and the need to search for truth. If the cause was true, physical force was not necessary; a satyagrahi could win through non-violence by appealing to the conscience of the oppressor.

Year	Place	Issue
1916-17	Champaran, Bihar	Peasants forced by planters to grow indigo
1917	Kheda, Gujarat	Peasants could not pay revenue after crop failure and plague
1918	Ahmedabad	Cotton mill workers' demand for a wage increase

▸ The Rowlatt Act (1919)

In **1919** the Imperial Legislative Council passed the **Rowlatt Act** in spite of unanimous opposition from Indian members. It gave the government enormous powers to repress political activities and allowed detention of political prisoners without trial for two years. Gandhi called for a nationwide **hartal on 6 April 1919**. Rallies were held in cities; railway workshops shut down and shops closed. Alarmed, the British arrested local leaders and Gandhi was barred from Delhi. On **10 April** in Amritsar police fired on a peaceful procession, leading to violence. Martial law was imposed under **General Dyer**.

IMPORTANT

Jallianwala Bagh, 13 April 1919. A crowd gathered in an enclosed ground, many to attend the Baisakhi fair and some unaware of martial law. Dyer blocked the exit and ordered troops to fire without warning. Hundreds were killed. Dyer later said his aim was to produce a 'moral effect'. People in Punjab were then crawled on streets, flogged and had villages bombed. Gandhi, shocked by the violence, called off the Rowlatt satyagraha.

▸ Khilafat

After the war the Ottoman Empire's Sultan (the Khalifa, spiritual head of Muslims) was treated harshly by the peace treaty. To defend the Khalifa's temporal powers, a **Khilafat Committee** was formed in Bombay in March 1919. Leaders like **Muhammad Ali and Shaukat Ali** wanted a united national action; Gandhi saw it as a chance to bring Hindus and Muslims together in a mass movement. At the **Calcutta session of the Congress (September 1920)** he convinced other leaders of the need to start a non-cooperation movement in support of Khilafat and swaraj.

▸ Non-Cooperation Movement (1920-22)

In his book *Hind Swaraj* (1909) Gandhi declared that British rule was established with the help of Indians and would collapse if Indians refused to cooperate. The Congress session at **Nagpur (December 1920)** adopted the programme.

- **Stages:** surrender of titles; boycott of civil services, army, police, courts, legislative councils, schools and foreign goods; and if the government used repression, a full civil disobedience campaign.
- **Impact:** Students left government schools, lawyers (Motilal Nehru, C. R. Das, Asaf Ali and others) gave up practice. Councils were boycotted except in Madras where the Justice Party, a party of non-Brahmans, felt that entering the council was a way to gain power. Foreign cloth was burnt, imports of foreign cloth halved between 1921 and 1922, and Indian textile mills and handlooms revived. Khadi was promoted.
- **In the countryside:** In **Awadh** peasants led by **Baba Ramchandra** fought against talukdars and landlords; the Oudh Kisan Sabha was set up in 1920 with Jawaharlal Nehru, Baba Ramchandra and others. In the **Gudem Hills of Andhra** a militant guerrilla movement under **Alluri Sitaram Raju** claimed Gandhi's name, though the forest-ban issues and violence were not Gandhian. **Plantation workers in Assam** left plantations, believing Gandhi Raj was coming.
- **End:** In **February 1922** a crowd at **Chauri Chaura (Gorakhpur, UP)** set a police station on fire, killing 22 policemen. Gandhi, committed to non-violence, withdrew the movement.

Towards Civil Disobedience

- Within the Congress, **C. R. Das and Motilal Nehru** formed the **Swaraj Party (1923)** to return to the councils; younger leaders like **Jawaharlal Nehru and Subhas Chandra Bose** pressed for radical mass agitation.
- Global depression, falling agricultural prices and rising unrest in the late 1920s added to the tension.
- The **Simon Commission**, set up in Britain to look into the constitutional system, had no Indian member. It arrived in India in **1928** and was greeted with 'Go back Simon' slogans.
- Lord Irwin announced a vague offer of 'dominion status' in October 1929 without any timeframe.
- At the **Lahore session (December 1929)** under Jawaharlal Nehru the Congress demanded **Purna Swaraj** (complete independence). **26 January 1930** was celebrated as Independence Day.

▸ The Salt March and Civil Disobedience

Gandhi found in **salt** a powerful symbol that could unite the nation: everyone used it and the government had a tax monopoly on its production. After a letter of eleven demands to Irwin was ignored, Gandhi began the **Salt**

March on **12 March 1930** with 78 trusted volunteers from **Sabarmati Ashram to Dandi**, about 240 miles in 24 days. On **6 April** he reached Dandi and ceremonially violated the law by making salt from seawater. This began the **Civil Disobedience Movement**.

	Non-Cooperation	Civil Disobedience
Idea	Refuse to cooperate with the government	Break colonial laws openly
Period	1920-22	1930-34 (with a pause in 1931)
Trigger	Rowlatt Act, Jallianwala, Khilafat	Salt tax, Purna Swaraj demand
Included	Boycott of schools, courts, councils, cloth	Salt law broken, boycott, refusal of revenue and chaukidari tax, forest laws
Ended by	Chauri Chaura, 1922	Gandhi-Irwin Pact 1931; resumed; slowed by 1934

- Thousands in different areas broke salt law, boycotted foreign cloth and picketed liquor shops. Peasants refused to pay revenue and chaukidari taxes, and village officials resigned. Forest people violated forest laws.
- Alarmed, the colonial government arrested Congress leaders; when Gandhi was arrested in April 1930 angry crowds attacked police posts in Sholapur.
- In **March 1931** the **Gandhi-Irwin Pact** ended the movement; Gandhi agreed to attend the **Second Round Table Conference** in London (December 1931). The talks broke down, and Civil Disobedience was resumed; by 1934 it had lost momentum.

How Participants Saw the Movement

Group	Role and aim
Rich peasants (Patidars of Gujarat, Jats of UP)	Hit by trade depression and fall in prices; fought high revenue demand; disappointed when the movement was called off without revenue being reduced
Poor peasants	Wanted rent to landlords to be remitted; Congress was unwilling to support ‘no rent’ campaigns for fear of upsetting landlords
Business classes	Indian Industrial and Commercial Congress (1920) and **FICCI** (1927); wanted protection against imports and a rupee-sterling ratio; shopkeepers refused to buy or sell foreign goods
Industrial workers	Nagpur workers participated; Congress was reluctant to include workers' demands
Women	Thousands marched, made salt and picketed; imprisoned; service seen as sacred duty but did not change their position at home

▸ Dalits and Muslims

- Dalits, called ‘Untouchables’, were not part of the movement in some regions; Gandhi called them **Harijan** (children of God) and organised satyagraha for temple entry and access to public wells. Dalit leaders formed the **Depressed Classes Association (1930)**. **Dr B. R. Ambedkar** clashed with Gandhi over **separate electorates** at the Second Round Table Conference. When the British conceded, Gandhi began a fast unto death; Ambedkar accepted the **Poona Pact (September 1932)**, which gave the Depressed Classes reserved seats in provincial and central councils but voted in by the general electorate.

- After the Khilafat issue faded, many Muslims felt alienated from Congress. The Hindu Mahasabha and the Muslim League grew; **Muhammad Ali Jinnah** demanded reserved seats in a federal setup. Efforts at compromise broke down in 1927-28.

The Sense of Collective Belonging

- Nationalism spreads when people believe they belong to one nation. Unity was created by **history, fiction, folklore, songs, popular prints and symbols**.
- The image of **Bharat Mata** was first created by **Bankim Chandra Chattopadhyay**, who wrote *Vande Mataram* as a hymn in the novel *Anandamath*; **Abanindranath Tagore** painted the famous image of Bharat Mata as an ascetic figure.
- Indian folklore was revived: **Rabindranath Tagore** collected ballads and nursery rhymes; Natesa Sastri published the *Folklore of Southern India*.
- A **tricolour flag** (red, green and white) with a spinning wheel was designed during the Swadeshi movement in Bengal; by 1921 Gandhi had designed a tricolour flag with the charkha, symbolising self-help.
- Reinterpretation of history helped; the British painted Indians as backward, and nationalist writers celebrated ancient greatness.

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
What is satyagraha?	A non-violent method of struggle based on truth and appeal to the conscience of the oppressor.
What was the Rowlatt Act?	A 1919 law allowing detention without trial for two years.
What was the Khilafat issue?	Protest against the harsh treatment of the Ottoman Khalifa after the First World War.
Why was the Non-Cooperation Movement stopped?	Violence at Chauri Chaura in February 1922.
What was the Poona Pact?	1932 agreement between Gandhi and Ambedkar giving Depressed Classes reserved seats without separate electorates.
Why did Gandhi choose salt?	It was used by all, taxed by the state and could unite rich and poor.
Why did Indian industrialists support Civil Disobedience?	They wanted protection from imports and a better currency ratio.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Gandhi's **satyagraha** turned the nationalist struggle into a mass movement.
- **Rowlatt Act and Jallianwala Bagh (1919)** and the **Khilafat** issue led to **Non-Cooperation (1920-22)**.
- **Civil Disobedience** began with the **Salt March (12 March - 6 April 1930)** and slowed after the 1931 pact.
- Each group, from Patidars and traders to Dalits and women, joined with its own hopes of swaraj.
- **Poona Pact (1932)** shows the tension between national unity and Dalit demands.
- Songs, images such as Bharat Mata and flags helped to build a sense of belonging.

CHAPTER 03 · HISTORY

The Making of a Global World

Today's world of trade, migration and shared culture has a long history. This chapter looks at the silk routes and the exchange of food and diseases, the nineteenth-century world economy, the shocks of two world wars and the Great Depression, and the rebuilding of the world economy after 1945.

Big Questions

- How did early trade link the world?
- How did the nineteenth century change trade, labour and technology?
- What did the wars and Depression do to the world economy?
- How did the post-war order, Bretton Woods and decolonisation shape the world?

The Pre-Modern World

- The **silk routes** linked Asia with Europe and North Africa; they are named for the Chinese silk carried along them. Pottery from China, textiles and spices from India and precious metals from the Americas travelled too, and religions such as Christianity and Islam spread along trade routes.
- Food travelled: noodles, according to one story, from China to the West and became spaghetti; ordinary foods like potatoes, soya, groundnuts, maize, tomatoes, chillies and sweet potatoes came from the Americas after **Columbus** (1492) discovered the continent. The potato helped Europe's poor eat better and live longer, but in Ireland the failure of the potato crop (1845-49) led to a terrible famine.
- The **conquest of the Americas** was helped by disease: European germs such as smallpox killed vast numbers of native people who had no immunity. Silver from mines in Peru and Mexico enriched Europe and financed trade with Asia.

The Nineteenth Century (1815-1914)

The world economy changed because of shifts in food supply, labour, capital and technology.

Area	Change
Food and population	Britain's population grew, so food prices rose; after the Corn Laws (restricting grain imports) were abolished in 1846 cheap food from America, Russia and Australia flowed in. Landowners lost out; people moved to cities.
Labour	Migration from Europe to America and Australia; about 50 million migrated from Europe in the nineteenth century, and many more from India and China.
Capital	British and other European capital financed railways, ports and plantations.
Technology	Railways, steamships and the telegraph linked markets; refrigerated ships carried meat.

▸ Colonies and trade

- **Africa:** At the Berlin Conference of **1885** European powers divided Africa among themselves. In the **1890s rinderpest**, a fast-spreading cattle disease, arrived in Africa and killed about 90 per cent of cattle; this loss of livelihood forced Africans to work for wages for European mining and plantation owners, and helped colonisers conquer the continent.

- **Indentured labour:** Many Indian and Chinese workers worked on plantations and mines in the Caribbean, Fiji, Mauritius and Africa under contracts called **indentures**. Most were from eastern UP, Bihar, central India and dry districts of Tamil Nadu. Recruiters often misled them about the work and the journey; conditions were harsh. The system was abolished in **1921**. Some cultural forms emerged, such as *Hosay* in Trinidad, *chutney music* and the Rastafari movement.
- **Indian trade:** Before 1800 Indian cotton textiles dominated world trade. After the Industrial Revolution Britain stopped imports and flooded India with machine goods. Indian exports shifted to raw materials: raw cotton, indigo, opium and wheat. Britain had a trade surplus with India, which it used to settle its deficits with other countries and to pay 'home charges' (pensions and debts) owed by the colonial government. Indian traders and moneylenders, such as the **Shikaripuri shroffs** and **Nattukottai Chettiars**, financed agricultural export crops in Central and South-East Asia.

The Inter-War Economy

- The **First World War (1914-18)** was fought between the Allies (Britain, France, Russia and later the US) and the Central Powers (Germany, Austria-Hungary, Ottoman Empire). Millions died; the war changed Britain from an international creditor into a debtor, and the USA became the leading creditor.
- After the war, Britain struggled to regain its Indian market because of Japanese competition. Wartime industries had to be shut down or cut, leading to unemployment.
- **Mass production and consumption** grew in the US: Henry Ford's moving **assembly line** made cars cheap; American consumer goods such as refrigerators, washing machines, radios and gramophones were bought on credit; housing and car booms followed. This prosperity ended in the late 1920s.

IMPORTANT

The Great Depression (1929 onwards). Causes: agricultural overproduction led to falling prices and farmers' incomes; US loans to Europe stopped in the mid-1920s; and the **Wall Street crash of 29 October 1929** collapsed the banking system, with thousands of banks closing. Unemployment peaked in the early 1930s at about a quarter of workers in the US. World trade fell by about half between 1929 and 1932.

- **India** was badly affected: exports and imports nearly halved between 1928 and 1934; prices of wheat fell by 50 per cent; farmers' debts rose. Jute producers in Bengal were hard hit. Urban dwellers with fixed incomes gained from falling prices. India also became an exporter of gold during the 1930s, which helped Britain.
- Peasants who produced cash crops suffered most, and their anger fed the Civil Disobedience Movement of 1930.

Rebuilding a World Economy after 1945

- The **Second World War (1939-45)** killed vast numbers; economists and politicians learnt two lessons: an industrial society needs mass consumption and so high incomes, and full employment should be a goal of government.
- In **July 1944**, an international conference at **Bretton Woods (New Hampshire, USA)** set up the **International Monetary Fund (IMF)** to deal with external surpluses and deficits and the **World Bank (International Bank for Reconstruction and Development)** to finance post-war reconstruction. The IMF and World Bank started financial operations in **1947**. They are called the **Bretton Woods institutions**; the system was based on fixed exchange rates, with the US dollar linked to gold.
- Decolonisation: many Asian and African countries became independent but were poor, with weak economies; the IMF and the World Bank did not at first focus on them. Developing countries organised

themselves as the **Group of 77 (G-77)** and demanded a **New International Economic Order (NIEO)** to give control over their natural resources and fairer trade terms.

- Fixed exchange rates ended in the early **1970s**, and floating rates took over. Oil price shocks of **1973** hit the industrial world; MNCs moved production to low-wage countries, e.g. in Asia; China opened its economy in 1978; the collapse of the Soviet Union and Eastern Europe in the 1990s brought those countries into the world economy.

Period	Key feature
1500s	Columbus' voyages, exchange of foods and diseases
1815-1914	Free trade, migration, colonial conquest
1914-1945	Wars, mass production, Great Depression
1944-1970s	Bretton Woods, fixed exchange rates, decolonisation
After 1970s	Floating rates, MNCs, globalisation

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
What were the silk routes?	Trade and cultural routes linking Asia, Europe and Africa.
Why did rinderpest change Africa?	It killed most cattle, forcing people to take wage work and easing colonial conquest.
What was indentured labour?	Contract labour under which workers were bound for a fixed term, often in poor conditions; abolished 1921.
What caused the Great Depression?	Overproduction, falling prices, withdrawal of US loans and the 1929 stock crash.
What was Bretton Woods?	1944 conference creating the IMF and World Bank.
What was NIEO?	Demand by G-77 developing countries for control over resources and fairer trade.
How did the Depression affect India?	Exports and prices fell, farmers fell into debt, and jute and wheat growers suffered.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Trade, food and diseases linked distant regions long before modern globalisation.
- In the **nineteenth century** trade grew, with migration, **indentured labour** and colonial control.
- The wars, mass production and the **Great Depression of 1929** shook the world economy.
- **Bretton Woods (1944)** created the **IMF and World Bank**; decolonisation gave rise to the G-77 and the NIEO demand.
- After the 1970s, floating exchange rates and multinational companies paved the way for today's globalisation.

CHAPTER 04 · HISTORY

The Age of Industrialisation

Industrialisation is often pictured as the story of big factories and steam engines. This chapter shows a more complex picture: hand production and small workshops lived alongside machines, and in colonial India industry grew under the shadow of British trade policy. It follows workers, weavers, merchants and advertisers.

Big Questions

- What was proto-industrialisation?
- Why did hand labour survive alongside machines?
- How did industrialisation affect Indian weavers?
- How did Indian businessmen and factories develop?
- How did advertising and market-making work?

Before the Industrial Revolution

Even before factories, there was large-scale production for international markets in Europe. This is called **proto-industrialisation**: merchants gave work to peasants and artisans in the countryside who worked at home, so that the town merchant had a source of cheap labour.

- Merchants could not expand production in towns because **guilds** (associations of producers) controlled prices, training and entry. So they went to villages, where peasants with small plots needed extra income.
- A clothier supplied wool, collected the spun yarn and gave it to weavers, then to dyers and finishers before selling in the markets of London.
- Peasants and artisans accepted this system because of poverty, and families worked together, so land and loom both gave an income.

Hand Labour and Steam Power

- The first factories in England appeared in the **1730s**. **Cotton** was the leading sector in the 1780s; a series of inventions, including **Richard Arkwright's cotton mill**, speeded up carding, twisting and spinning. Mills allowed closer supervision and quality control.
- The steam engine, first devised by **Newcomen**, was improved by **James Watt** (patent 1781), who made it a source of power for industry. Cotton and iron and steel industries expanded; railways grew.
- Yet **industrialisation was slow**: even in 1914 the largest employment was in traditional industries like clothing and footwear, not factories. Seasonal industries (gas works, book binding, Christmas products) used hand labour. Many manufacturers preferred hand workers because of low wages, varying demand and the need for variety; aristocrats and the middle classes liked **hand-made goods**, which they felt were of better finish.

> **NOTE**
> In Victorian Britain there was no shortage of cheap labour. Machines needed high investment and repairs, so employers used machines mainly when wages were high or when production was large and steady.

▸ Life of workers

- Migrants from the countryside came to cities looking for jobs; jobs were seasonal and many workers waited in groups for work, relying on friends and relatives.
- Wages rose a little but real incomes were hit by rising prices; there were years of unemployment, and fear of new machines like the **spinning jenny** (introduced by James Hargreaves in 1764) led to attacks by workers, who feared that it would take their jobs.

Industrialisation in the Colonies

▸ The decline of Indian textiles

- Before machines, Indian silk and cotton goods dominated international markets. Merchants from **Surat, Hooghly and Masulipatnam** exported goods; the old ports declined and Bombay and Calcutta rose after the British gained control.
- From the late **eighteenth century** the East India Company's monopoly and the use of **gomastas** (paid servants) to supervise weavers, collect supplies and examine cloth reduced the weavers' freedom: they were forced to sell only to the company and take advances; clashes with the gomastas occurred.
- Cotton goods from **Manchester** flooded Indian markets in the nineteenth century because of the low duties; by the 1850s and 1860s, weavers had lost the export market and also faced competition at home. When the American Civil War (1861-65) cut off supplies of raw cotton, prices in India shot up and weavers could not afford yarn.
- By the early twentieth century, handloom weaving survived because of the **fly shuttle**, which increased productivity and brought lower costs. Fly shuttle was invented by John Kay in 1733. Weavers making coarse cloth held on better than those making fine cloth.

▸ Factories come up

- The first **cotton mill in Bombay** was set up in **1854**; by 1862 four mills were working. The first **jute mill** was set up in Bengal in **1855**.
- **Elgin Mill** in Kanpur was set up in the 1860s, and the Ahmedabad mill in 1861. In 1874 the first spinning and weaving mill of Madras began production.
- Indian traders: Merchants such as **Dwarkanath Tagore** invested in shipping, mines, banking and plantations; **Parsi** families such as the Tatas, Petits and Jejeebhoys, and Marwari merchants like **Seth Hukumchand** (first Indian jute mill in Calcutta in 1917) and the Birlas grew rich in China trade, then invested in industry. **Jamsetji Tata** founded the Tata Iron and Steel Company (1907), whose plant at **Jamshedpur** began production in 1912.
- Many Indian merchants were barred from trade with Europe by the Company and were denied entry into shipping.

▸ Workers and the early factories

Most workers came from nearby districts and were peasants and artisans who found work in factories seasonally. Mill owners used a **jobber**, an old and trusted worker, to get new recruits, get them jobs, help them settle in the city and give them money in times of crisis. Jobbers became powerful and demanded money and favours.

▸ Peculiarities of industrial growth

- European **managing agencies** controlled a large part of Indian industry, including tea and coffee plantations, mining and jute; they invested their own and others' capital.
- From 1905, when the Swadeshi movement began, nationalists boycotted foreign cloth and mill production in India increased.

- The **First World War** brought huge demand for jute bags, army cloth, tents and boots, while Manchester supplies fell; Indian factories expanded and many new workers were employed. After the war, Manchester could not regain its colonial market, and Indian industry grew; by 1930s small-scale units (power looms, hand looms) formed much of industrial employment.

Market for Goods

- Producers create new consumers through **advertising**. Manchester cloth makers pasted labels on cloth bundles with the place of manufacture and the name 'MADE IN MANCHESTER'; labels carried images of Indian gods and goddesses such as **Kartika, Lakshmi and Saraswati** to give the goods an appeal.
- From the late nineteenth century, calendars were printed to be hung in shops and homes; even people who could not read could see them. Images of national leaders and emperors appeared on them.
- When Indian manufacturers advertised, the message was clearly **nationalist**: 'if you care for the nation, buy products that Indians produce.'

Feature	Britain	Colonial India
Early industry	Cotton mills in 1780s; hand work remained	Handloom decline; mills from 1854
Power	Steam engine (Watt)	Imported machines and steam
Labour	Cheap labour reduced use of machines	Jobbers recruited workers
Market	Domestic and colonial	Manchester imports; Swadeshi

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
What was proto-industrialisation?	Large-scale rural production for merchants, before factories.
Why did hand labour survive in Britain?	Low wages, seasonal demand and taste for hand-made goods.
Who was a gomasta?	Paid servant of the East India Company who supervised weavers.
Who set up the first Indian cotton mill in Bombay and when?	Cotton mill in Bombay, 1854 (founded by Indian businessmen led by Cowasjee Nanabhoy Davar).
What did a jobber do?	Recruited workers and controlled them in mills.
How did the First World War help Indian industry?	Manchester supplies fell and war orders rose.
Why were Indian gods shown on labels?	To give imported goods a familiar, respectable image.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Industry before factories grew through **proto-industrialisation** in the countryside.
- In Britain hand labour and machines co-existed for long; **steam power** and cotton led change.
- Indian weavers lost out to **Manchester goods** and to the control of **gomastas**.
- Mills arose in **Bombay (1854)** and Bengal; **Tata** set up steel at Jamshedpur in 1912.
- War and **Swadeshi** boosted Indian industry; advertisements built new markets.

CHAPTER 05 · HISTORY

Print Culture and the Modern World

Print shaped the modern world. It made books cheap, carried new ideas to ordinary readers, made reform debates public and helped nationalism spread. This chapter follows print from East Asia to Europe and then India, and shows how governments and readers reacted.

Big Questions

- How did printing begin and spread?
- How did print change religion and ideas in Europe?
- How did print develop in India?
- How did print affect reform, women and nationalism?
- How did the British try to control it?

The First Printed Books

- Print technology began in **China, Japan and Korea** with **hand-printing** from woodblocks. China had a huge civil service examination system, and the state was the major producer of printed material. The Buddhist **Diamond Sutra**, printed in **868 CE**, is the oldest dated printed book to survive.
- **Marco Polo** brought the knowledge of woodblock printing from China to Italy in **1295**. Books were printed on vellum; the wealthy bought hand-written books, while woodblock printed books spread in Europe.
- In Japan, printing of the 17th-century city culture covered urban life, with illustrated books on women, music, tea ceremony and cooking.

Print Comes to Europe: Gutenberg

- **Johann Gutenberg**, a goldsmith from Strasbourg (Germany), developed the first known printing press in the **1430s** at his family farm in Mainz, using the olive and wine press as a model, and metal moulds for the alphabet. The first book he printed was the **Bible**: about **180 copies in three years**, which was fast by the standards of the day.
- By **1450-1550** printing presses were set up in most countries of Europe; in the second half of the fifteenth century, about 20 million copies of printed books were produced in Europe, and in the sixteenth century it went up to about 200 million. This was the **print revolution**.
- Book prices fell; readers increased; new reading public emerged; people memorised and heard stories read aloud, but now **reading** took over.

▸ Religious debates and the fear of print

- **Martin Luther** wrote the **Ninety-Five Theses** (1517) criticising the Roman Catholic Church. It was printed and widely read, leading to the **Protestant Reformation**. Luther said print was ‘God's ultimate gift’.
- An Italian miller, **Menocchio**, read books and reinterpreted the Bible; the Church tried him and he was executed. The Church imposed controls on publishers and booksellers and began to maintain an **Index of Prohibited Books** from **1558**.

The Reading Mania

- By the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries literacy rose in Europe; peasants and artisans began to read. Literacy grew through church schools and popular ballads and folk tales, and in some regions by 1800 reached 60 to 80 per cent.
- Cheap booklets called **chapbooks**, sold by pedlars (chapmen), and ‘penny’ books reached the poor; **almanacs**, ballads and newspapers circulated.
- In the nineteenth century new reading groups appeared: children, women and workers; ‘penny magazines’ and **serialised novels** by writers such as **Charles Dickens**; circulating libraries; women like **Jane Austen, the Brontë sisters and George Eliot** wrote and became a new class of readers.

▸ Technical innovations

In the late 18th century, metal presses replaced wooden ones. By the mid-nineteenth century, **Richard M. Hoe** of New York perfected the **power-driven cylindrical press**, which could print 8,000 sheets an hour, and the **offset press** later printed six colours. Electrically operated presses, automatic paper reels and a series of other changes sped up production; printers promoted their products with book covers, jackets and illustrations.

▸ Print and the French Revolution

Many historians argue that print created a climate of thought: books by **Voltaire and Rousseau** promoted reason and criticised custom; print popularised the ideas of **Enlightenment** thinkers; a spirit of questioning of authority arose; cheap satire and cartoons mocked the monarchy; **Mercier** declared, ‘Tremble, therefore, tyrants of the world!’

India and the World of Print

- India had a rich tradition of handwritten manuscripts in Sanskrit, Arabic, Persian and vernacular languages, copied on palm leaf or handmade paper; they were expensive and fragile and not accessible to ordinary people.
- **Portuguese missionaries** brought the printing press to **Goa** in the mid-sixteenth century; by **1674** about 50 books were printed in Konkani and Kannada. Catholic priests printed the first **Tamil** book in 1579 at Cochin and the first Malayalam book in 1713. Dutch Protestant missionaries printed Tamil texts.
- **James Augustus Hickey** began the weekly *Bengal Gazette* in **1780**, a magazine that was proud of being ‘open to all parties, but influenced by none’; he attacked the Company's officials. The Governor-General Warren Hastings persecuted him. **Gangadhar Bhattacharya** later brought out the first Indian-owned weekly, also called *Bengal Gazette*.

▸ Religious reform and public debates

- Debates about widow immolation (sati), monotheism, Brahmanical priesthood and idolatry involved reformers such as **Rammohan Roy**, who published the *Sambad Kaumudi* (**1821**), and conservatives such as the *Samachar Chandrika*.
- Muslim clerics of **Deoband** (the Deoband seminary, founded in 1867) published thousands of **fatwas** telling Muslims how to conduct themselves; Hindu devotional texts such as the Ramcharitmanas of Tulsidas were printed cheaply from the 1810s.

▸ New forms of publication

- Novels, lyrics, short stories, essays about social issues and political subjects arose; painters like **Raja Ravi Varma** produced mass-circulated prints for homes; caricatures and cartoons appeared in journals from the 1870s.
- **Women** became readers and writers: Rashsundari Debi's *Amar Jiban* (**1876**), a Bengali autobiography, **Tarabai Shinde** wrote *Stripurushtulna* (1882) attacking social differences. Not everyone approved, and

some fathers and husbands banned women from reading.

- **Social reformers: Jyotiba Phule** wrote *Gulamgiri* (c. 1871) on caste injustice; **Dr B. R. Ambedkar** and **E. V. Ramaswamy Naicker (Periyar)** wrote powerful critiques; mill workers such as **Kashibaba**, a Kanpur mill worker, wrote *Chhote aur Bade Ka Sawal* (1938) to show links between caste and class exploitation. **Libraries** in towns gave workers access to books.

Print and Censorship

- In its early years the East India Company was not much concerned about censorship, except for Anglo-Indian papers critical of the Company. After the 1857 revolt, attitudes changed: 'native' papers were seen as dangerous.
- The **Vernacular Press Act (1878)**, modelled on Irish press laws, gave the government the right to censor reports and editorials in the vernacular press; if a paper published a report judged 'seditious', the paper was warned, then press and equipment seized.
- In spite of this, **nationalist newspapers** grew in numbers; when Punjab revolutionaries were deported in 1907, **Balgangadhar Tilak** wrote with great sympathy in his *Kesari*, and was imprisoned in 1908. This provoked protests.

Date	Event
868 CE	Buddhist Diamond Sutra, oldest dated printed book
1295	Marco Polo brings woodblock knowledge to Italy
1430s	Gutenberg's press
1517	Luther's Ninety-Five Theses
1558	Index of Prohibited Books
1780	Hickey's Bengal Gazette
1821	Sambad Kaumudi
1878	Vernacular Press Act

Quick Revision: Likely Exam Questions

Likely question	Model answer
Who developed the printing press in Europe?	Johann Gutenberg, in the 1430s.
What was the Protestant Reformation?	Movement against Church practices begun by Luther's 95 Theses (1517).
What were chapbooks?	Small cheap books sold by pedlars to common readers.
Who started the Bengal Gazette?	James Augustus Hickey, in 1780.
What was the Vernacular Press Act?	1878 law letting the government censor Indian-language newspapers.
How did print help social reform?	It carried the writings of Phule, Ambedkar and others to wide readers.
Who wrote Amar Jiban?	Rashsundari Debi, 1876.

★ KEY TAKEAWAYS

- Printing began with **woodblocks in East Asia**; **Gutenberg's press** (1430s) began the print revolution in Europe.
- Print spread the **Reformation**, Enlightenment ideas and a wide new reading public.
- In India print came with **missionaries** and became a tool for **reform and nationalism**.
- Women, workers and lower castes found a voice in print.
- The government answered with controls such as the **Vernacular Press Act (1878)**.